

- Rolnik, R. (2013) 'Late neoliberalism: the financialization of homeownership and housing rights', *International Journal of Urban and Regional Research*, 37(3), 1058–1066.
- Roy, A., Jockin, A. and Javed, A. (2004) 'Community police stations in Mumbai's slums', *Environment and Urbanization*, 16(2), 135–138.
- Santos, B. (1977) 'The law of the oppressed: the construction and reproduction of legality in Pasargada', *Law & Society Review*, 12(1).
- Shin, H. and Li, B. (2013) 'Whose games? The costs of being "olympic citizens" in Beijing', *Environment and Urbanization*, 25(2), 559–576.
- Shin, H., Lees, L. and López-Morales, E. (2016) 'Introduction: locating gentrification in the Global East', *Urban Studies*, 53(3), 455–470.
- Silvestre, G. and Oliveira, N. (2012) 'The revanchist logic of mega-events: community displacement in Rio de Janeiro's West End', *Visual Studies*, 27(2), 204–210.
- Slater, T. (2011) 'Gentrification of the city', in Bridge, G. and Watson, S. (eds) *The New Blackwell Companion to the City*, Oxford: Wiley-Blackwell, pp. 571–585.
- Smith, N. (1979) 'Toward a theory of gentrification: a back to the city movement by capital not people', *Journal of the American Planning Association*, 45, 538–548.
- Smith, N. (1996) *The New Urban Frontier: Gentrification and the Revanchist City*, London: Routledge.
- Turner, J. (1972) *Housing by People: Towards Autonomy in Building Environments*, London: Marion Boyars.
- Valladares, L. (2006) *La Favela d'un Siècle à l'autre: Mythe d'origine, Discours Scientifiques et Représentations Virtuelles*, Paris: Editions Maison des Sciences des Hommes.
- Villegas, C., Esteban, K. and Nussbaumer, B. (2016) 'La ciudad esconde el proceso. La protesta popular en Vila Autódromo, Rio de Janeiro' [The city hides the process. Popular protest in 'Vila Autódromo', Rio de Janeiro], *Ikonos: Revista de Ciencias Sociales*, 56, 159–176.
- Waldorff, P. (2016) '"The law is not for the poor": land, law and eviction in Luanda', *Singapore Journal of Tropical Geography*, 37, 363–377.
- Weinstein, L. (2014) *The Durable Slum: Dharavi and the Right to Stay Put in Globalizing Mumbai*, Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press.
- Wilkinson, R. and Pickett, K. (2010) *The Spirit Level: Why Equality is Better for Everyone*, London: Penguin.
- Yutzy, C. (2012) 'Increased state presence through the Unidade de Polícia Pacificadora in Santa Marta, Rio de Janeiro: the creation of the city's theme park and resulting social issues', *Revista de Estudos Urbanos*, 38(1), 127–146.

15. New-build gentrification

Mark Davidson

15.1 INTRODUCTION

In the 1990s and 2000s, the process of 'new-build gentrification' (Davidson and Lees 2005, 2010) took gentrification from modest mews (Glass 1964) to shimmering multi-million dollar residential towers. The scale and speed of neighbourhood transformation associated with this form of gentrification was striking. New-build gentrification became a central element of what was labelled 'third wave gentrification'. In 2001, Hackworth and Smith defined the latter process in the following way:

Prophesies of degentrification appear to have been overstated as many neighbourhoods continue to gentrify while others, further from the city centre begin to experience the process for the first time. Post-recession gentrification seems to be more linked to large-scale capital than ever, as large developers rework entire neighbourhoods, often with state support (467).

Some 15 years on from this defining statement, three things jump out at the reader. First, the late 1990s concern with degentrification (also see Marcuse 1993) appears almost quaint from the vantage point of today's increasingly gentrified cities. Second, third wave gentrification contained two distinguishing features: the reliance on (i) corporate capital and (ii) governmental support. Simply put, transforming neighbourhoods – and, indeed, city regions – via new residential developments required large developers with lots of capital and the regulatory support of the state. Third, early conceptualizations of new-build gentrification overwhelmingly originated from North America and the United Kingdom. In doing so, this gentrification scholarship was closely connected to attempts to understand the state-forms associated with Third Way political ideology (see Giddens 1999). In early accounts of new-build gentrification (e.g. Davidson and Lees 2005), the 'state-led' prefix therefore often presumes a particular state-form; one closely connected to the centre-left effort to reform the harder edges of neoliberalism. These three distinctions remain critical, if often under-estimated, to current understandings of the history of gentrification(s).

Class-based, large-scale, capital-intensive transformations of modern urban space can arguably be dated to 29 June 1853; the day that Napoléon III instructed Georges Eugène Haussmann to 'aérer, unifier, et embellir' Paris. In the works that continued until the 1920s, the transformation of Paris famously involved replacing working class quarters with an epoch defining bourgeois landscape. Harvey (2005) describes how this urban transformation was related to a very particular politico-economic situation: 'The surpluses of capital and labor power, so crushingly evident in 1848, were to be absorbed through a program of massive long-term investment in the built environment that focused on the amelioration of space relations. Within a year of the declaration of Empire, more than a thousand were at work on the construction site of the Tuileries . . .' (104).

This crisis of capitalist accumulation created two necessities. First, the state had to

act in order to resolve a crisis of surplus capital. Second, in order to employ such large amounts of capital, the urban landscape would require a radical remaking. I note these two rather self-evident features of Harvey's synopsis in order to draw a necessary analogy between the nineteenth-century origins of new-build gentrification and its contemporary manifestations. New-build gentrification has predominantly, but not exclusively (see Smith 2011), been a process whereby large-scale capital and state power work in concert to transform the built form. This transformation is not principally a matter of residential preferences, policy choices or local land market fluctuation. Rather it fundamentally concerns the ways in which the urban process is continually shaped by capitalist processes.

Our starting point for understanding new-build gentrification should not therefore be the last 30 years of neoliberal urbanism, but rather our framing should be the much longer history of capitalism's relationship to urbanization. Within this history, we can find numerous examples of state-facilitated, large-scale capital investments serving to radically alter the class composition of neighbourhoods and, at a grander scale, recreate class relations more generally (see Harvey 2005). Such a reading means we must not only be sensitive to the inevitable geographical variations of the gentrification process, but also understand how successive waves of capitalist crisis accumulate to generate an accruing of the gentrification process.

This process of accrual is now reflected throughout the gentrification literature. Earlier debates surrounding new-build gentrification focused on the Anglo-sphere of the UK (Davidson and Lees 2005; Lambert and Boddy 2002), USA (Hackworth and Smith 2001; Smith 1996) and Australia (Shaw 2002). Now we see commentary on new-build gentrification from across the globe, with Asia (Moore 2015) and Latin America (López-Morales 2016) being particularly notable for the extent and intensity of new-build gentrification.

15.2 THE RISE OF NEW-BUILD-ISM: THIRD WAY GENTRIFICATION AND REGENERATION

Although it is possible to identify different forms of new-build gentrification across the history of urbanization, the term 'new-build gentrification' entered the urban lexicon during the 1990s and 2000s. In 1996, Neil Smith (39) made the following commentary on the gentrification processes he was observing at the time:

How, in the large context of changing social geographies, are we to distinguish adequately between the rehabilitation of nineteenth-century housing, the construction of new condominium towers, the opening of festival markets to attract local and not so local tourists, the proliferation of wine bars and boutiques for everything and the construction of modern and postmodern office buildings employing thousands of professionals, all looking for a place to live? . . . Gentrification is no longer about a narrow and quixotic oddity in the housing market but has become the leading residential edge of a much larger endeavour: the class remake of the central urban landscape (cited in Davidson and Lees 2005: 1166).

What Smith was describing was later characterized as 'new-build gentrification' (Davidson and Lees 2005). The distinction Smith (1996) began to draw out is between a small-scale part of the urban process (i.e. the renovation of terraced townhouses by aspirant middle-class peoples) and a much more pervasive trend that itself is a defining part of the urban

process. Whereas the processes that Ruth Glass described in 1964 were always somewhat marginal compared to parallel suburbanizations, the gentrification that Smith identified with 'the construction of new condominium towers' represented something quite different. The new condo boom that Smith observed was, and remains, the exemplary form of contemporary urbanization in places such as London (Davidson and Lees 2005, 2010) and Toronto (Kern 2010; Rosen and Walks 2015). Parallel processes have also rolled-out beyond the urban centres of the Global North, with cities such as Bangkok (Moore 2015) and Kuala Lumpur (Ortega 2016) experiencing new-build gentrifying development. In these cases, gentrification and state-led national economic development projects have often gone hand-in-hand. Indeed, in terms of intensity of neighbourhood transition and geographical extent, examples of new-build gentrification in the Global South now often appear to exceed those in cities such as London and Toronto (see Harris 2008; He 2010). On this point, the link between new-build gentrification and state power is critical.

This shift from a marginal, but significant, process to the exemplar for contemporary urban development necessitated the use of state power. This state power has come in various guises and forms. In some cases, state power has taken a particularly violent form, with governments using their powers of eminent domain (Carpenter and Ross 2009) and/or land ownership (Wu 2015) to instigate large-scale redevelopment schemes. In other times and places, policy recommendations and policy changes have incentivized some land uses and privileged some redevelopment actors over others (e.g. Hedin et al. 2012). In order to make gentrification the default program to produce economic growth and urban renewal, the state has again had to become a central actor within the urban process. And in order to take this role, the state – at least in democratic forms – has been required to provide justifications for its actions.

When Harvey (2005) describes the modernity at the centre of Haussmann's plans for Paris, he focuses on the need for the new regime to represent a historical break. Tomorrow's Paris would, at the request of Emperor Napoléon III, be created without reference to the past. The past was deemed irrelevant and the emerging city would adhere to a new and superior set of political values and ideas. Such an approach to urban renewal was to become symbolic of modern urbanization (Berman 1982). As processes of creative destruction have unfolded, so ideological explanations have been required to justify inevitable upheavals. The third wave of gentrification has often been intertwined with the advent of neoliberal politics and policy. In order to set about transforming the city along radically new lines (e.g. Urban Task Force 1999), a rejection of the past and/or an embrace of an alternate future has been necessitated. In the case of Haussmann's Paris, a rejection of the past became a political necessity. Today, such a rejection seems less important than modernist developmental promises and related claims about economic necessity that often serve to justify large-scale transformations of the urban form.

When London's riverside began to transform in the late 1990s and early 2000s (see Davidson and Lees 2005, 2010), the entire redevelopment process was at the same time being narrated by a new and ambitious centre-left policy agenda. Under Tony Blair's New Labour, urban policy was radically reformed. The government had commissioned the Richard Rogers-led *Urban Task Force* to come up with a new vision of Britain's cities. The policies and programs that emerged became shining examples of the Third Way (see Giddens 1999) political philosophy that underpinned the government's ideology. Third Way politics were meant to represent a distinct break from previous formulations of

reformist socialism. What this meant for urban development was a notable shift in the language that explained urban development trajectories. Gentrification via wholesale neighbourhood redevelopment was cast as a project of social engineering and urban improvement. This project involved breaking down segregating urban geographies and installing new types of social mixing (Rose et al. 2013). Such a project required accompanying initiatives about social mixing and/or social integration (Davidson 2010).

Much of the 2000's British- and American-based literature on new-build gentrification is therefore situated within a common concern with social mixing policies (Lees 2008). An important question is implicit throughout this work: could the state-sanctioned expansion of gentrification be manipulated into a socially positive process? The promise of these politics was reduced segregation, economic benefits for low-income residents relating to gentrifiers deploying social capital in disinvested spaces, and the creation of more inclusive communities. Within the context of this seemingly new political program, a whole set of assumptions about gentrification and its social impacts were therefore being re-examined.

In Smith's 1979 description of the rent gap, he acknowledged that the state remained central to gentrification, even if private market actors seemed to be dominating in places such as Philadelphia:

Once the rent gap is wide enough, gentrification may be initiated in a given neighborhood by several different actors in the land and housing market. . . . The state, for example, initiated most if not all of the early schemes, and though it plays a lesser role today, is still important. More commonly today, with private market gentrification, one or more financial institutions will reverse a long standing redlining policy and actively target a neighborhood as a potential market for construction loans and mortgages (545).

In contrast to Smith's early comments, third wave gentrification became manifest because the state opted to take a more active role in neighbourhood change. And with this, new-build gentrification became the principal vehicle by which the state's urban renewal objectives would be achieved. A confluence of surplus capital requiring large scale investment fixes (Christophers 2016) and the changing ideological basis of Anglo social democratic political parties therefore created the conditions for new-build gentrification to become a leading edge of contemporary urbanization.

15.3 A THEORY OF NEW-BUILD GENTRIFICATION?

Although the re-emergence of the state within gentrification processes enabled widespread new-build gentrification, its presence also created analytical and political complexities. Gentrification had traditionally been associated with the renovation of existing housing stock (cf. Glass 1964), whereas new-build construction was largely a concern of those studying new urban development (e.g. Gans 1982). The conjoining of new-build construction and neighbourhood reinvestment therefore presented conceptual challenges. These challenges were further complicated in places such as the UK and USA that were adopting Third Way (Giddens 1999) social policies aimed at using this conjoining to produce a 'positive' form of gentrification. Since a defining feature of gentrification is a distinctly inequitable outcome, displacement, the insertion of egalitarian policy objectives into the

gentrification process potentially transforms gentrification into something else entirely: gentrification without displacement is not gentrification. Early debates on new-build gentrification were specifically concerned with this issue.

15.3.1 Residentialization or Gentrification?

In 2002, Lambert and Boddy published the results of a study into residential development in cities around the UK. Observing a growing number of new residential developments in places such as Bristol, they asked whether the concept of gentrification was an applicable descriptor:

. . . core-area housing development in Bristol and other second tier UK cities has consisted mainly of corporate new build or conversion of former commercial or industrial buildings. This contrasts with the neighbourhood gentrification of early decades driven mainly by relatively better off households buying and renovating individual properties in generally lower income areas, for their own use. One implication is that there is no direct displacement of other social groups and lower income households as occurred with pre-recession gentrification. Gentrification in the sense of a process of social change based on 'invasion and succession' is, therefore a misnomer (21).

For Lambert and Boddy, the absence of direct displacement meant that the urban changes they were observing required a different explanation. The concept they developed was 'residentialization' and it was intended to describe a process of land use change distinct from gentrification. These land use changes involved the return and/or establishment of residential spaces within the cores of UK cities, particularly outside of London. While this process has parallels to gentrification in that it involves a reversal of centrifugal residential geographies in the industrial city, they felt it lacked the defining process of displacement and hence required a distinguishing concept.

This contention was picked up by Davidson and Lees (2005) when they developed the cases for and against the types of residential development described as examples of 'residentialization'. The case against focused on the pivotal issue of displacement, with Lambert and Boddy (2002: 18) arguing that the location of residential developments in brownfield sites meant the return of residents to core urban areas but did not involve displacement. This represents a powerful argument, since the UK state was, through a new set of urban policies, supposedly directing and conditioning capital reinvestment in the built form. By concentrating new-build onto brownfield sites and often requiring affordable housing allocations within new housing developments, policymakers promised to change neighbourhood class composition without displacing existing residents.

In response, Davidson and Lees (2005) presented a four-fold case against this interpretation. They claimed that gentrification has four defining elements: '(1) reinvestment of capital; (2) social upgrading of locale by incoming high-income groups; (3) landscape change; and (4) direct or indirect displacement of low-income groups' (1170). The first three elements, which are rather uncontroversial, are shown to be present in cases similar to those examined by Lambert and Boddy (2002). Turning to displacement, Davidson and Lees (2005) presented evidence to suggest that displacement is taking place in neighbourhoods experiencing new-build gentrification/residentialization. They claimed: 'New-build developments will generate displacement by introducing a large population of gentrifiers

into the community very quickly and will thereby act as beachheads from which the tentacles of gentrification can reach outward into the adjacent communities' (1184). By documenting the various ways in which new-build developments were enacting a class-based transition (see Davidson 2010) and pushing out working-class residents, Davidson and Lees (2005) demonstrated not only the applicability of the concept of gentrification, but also its political necessity.

By demonstrating that the defining elements of gentrification were present in cases of urban redevelopment along London's River Thames, Davidson and Lees (2005) provided a conceptual foundation to identify gentrification outside of its traditional locales (see Shaw 2002). However, another literature that emerged out of the Continental European context brought further challenges to those who wanted to mobilize the concept of new-build gentrification to describe emergent forms of urban change.

15.3.2 Reurbanization or Gentrification?

Reurbanization (Buzar et al. 2007; Haase et al. 2010) is a concept developed to describe the (re)growth of residential populations in a number of European cities. The concept is explicitly designed to capture a process that is similar, but ultimately different from gentrification (Haase et al. 2010). Reurbanization attempts to link demographic changes to transformations taking place within the structure of European and North American cities. The historical background to this is decades of suburban flight experienced in cities across the Global North. Reurbanization therefore seeks to describe the emergent counter-process in a similar way that gentrification has been described as a back to the city movement. Yet, according to Buzar et al. (2007) gentrification is not an accurate descriptor since, they claimed, it fails to capture the distinctive demographics, scales, housing preferences and social structures at play. Critically, this combination of distinctions means that the class dynamics of urban change processes in cities such as Ljubljana, Leipzig, Bologna and Lyon are said to be different when compared to gentrification in cities and regions not experiencing depopulation:

Unlike gentrification, which affects only selected parts of the urban tissue and is associated with specific social groups and economic processes, reurbanisation is taking place throughout the inner city and is mobilising a much broader range of populations. Indeed, it would be difficult to describe as 'gentrification' the massive influx of international immigrants, young families and students into the lower end of the housing markets of all four cities (Buzar et al. 2007: 672).

The characterization of urban change within the reurbanization literature is therefore one that involves a largely vacant place becoming repopulated. Reurbanization is often described as a process of stabilization (Haase et al. 2010); after years of decline, city centres are characterized as moving towards a sustainable population and tax base.

Whereas gentrification involves a clear class transition, reurbanization is therefore more mixed. It is 'a process of repopulating the inner city with a variety of social groups and lifestyles' (Buzar et al. 2007: 671). This description of a process that simply repopulates an abandoned urban core has strong parallels with debates over social polarization (see Moulaert et al. [eds] 2003). Although proponents of the reurbanization thesis (Buzar et al. 2007; Haase et al. 2010) make a distinction between processes of social change occurring

in cities placed differently within the urban hierarchy, some scholars working within large metropolitan centres made similar arguments (Hamnett 1994). Such characterizations of urban population transition have been questioned by scholars on the basis that existing social class measures often fail to understand the social composition and distinctions of the post-industrial city (Davidson and Wily 2012; Watt 2008).

Debates on reurbanization therefore emphasize the impact of demographic shifts on urban processes, whereas concerns with residentialization (Lambert and Boddy 2002) focus more on the micro-scale social dynamics relating to changing land use. In each case, an argument is made against the concept of new-build gentrification principally on the basis of the absence of displacement. For those developing the concept of reurbanization, there is little or no working-class population to displace. For proponents of residentialization, the obvious absence of direct displacement from industrial or ex-industrial sites means the term gentrification is inapplicable. Although a case-by-case analysis of urban change would reveal varying degrees of transition, much of this disagreement stems from a fundamental misunderstanding about how gentrification generates multiple forms of displacement.

15.3.3 New-build Gentrification and Displacement

New-build gentrification can generate both direct and indirect displacement (Davidson 2010). Direct displacement is the most glaring injustice inflicted by gentrification processes. For new-build gentrification, this form of displacement tends to be associated with demolition (Lees 2014), where old structures are threatened or actually ripped down (Goetz 2011) and existing residents consequently moved out. Indirect displacement is a more slippery concept to deal with, since it involves a number of elements.

For Marcuse (1985) there are four displacement factors relating to gentrification: (i) direct last-resident displacement, (ii) direct chain displacement, (iii) exclusionary displacement, and (iv) displacement pressure. The last of these factors, displacement pressure, is critical for studies of new-build gentrification and, I would argue, gentrification in general. Marcuse describes displacement pressure in the following way:

When a family sees the neighborhood around it changing dramatically, when their friends are leaving the neighborhood, when the stores they patronize are liquidating and new stores for other clientele are taking their places, and when changes in public facilities, in transportation patterns, and in support services all clearly are making the area less and less livable, then the pressure of displacement is already severe (Marcuse 1985: 207).

The different forms of displacement are important because the physical relocation of individuals from a home and neighbourhood means the loss of various things. This loss might be monetary, although displacement can also involve financial gains via the sale of property or statutory recompense. Even in such cases, however, there is still likely to be significant loss associated with displacement. What physical displacement almost inevitably means is a certain dislocation of one's lifeworld; a wrenching of one's being from its formative spatial existence: 'there is a need to ask why displacement matters at all: what does a loss of place constitute? How is a loss of space differentiated from a loss of place?' (Davidson 2009: 226). The answers to these questions involves recognizing the co-constitutive relationship between place and self (see Heidegger 1927[2008]; Lefebvre 1991).

When a neighbourhood becomes subject to gentrifying new-build development, this relationship between place and self can become radically altered. For an existing resident of a working-class neighbourhood, the rapid transition of retail and social services, along with a changing political community, can destroy a sense of belonging. A painful irony in many recent cases of new-build gentrification is that this is often the intent of policymakers. Ideas such as boosting social capital, generating integration and stimulating community participation often convert into a rejection of the existing community and an aspiration to replace it with something deemed more acceptable (Watt 2008). This linkage between processes of indirect displacement and state policy is one reason why new-build gentrification has become so powerful and pervasive. When dressed in the seemingly progressive rhetoric of centre-left social policy, new-build gentrification can appear a common sense solution for neighbourhood decline. The policies recast indirect displacement into a social good and, therefore, tend to legitimate displacement-causing gentrification processes. If we therefore limit our understanding of gentrification-induced displacement to the direct kind, as proponents of residentialization (Lambert and Boddy 2002) and reurbanization (Buzar et al. 2007) have tended to do, then we omit a full understanding of displacement and risk denying the crucial presence of state power with contemporary gentrification processes.

15.4 GLOBAL NEW-BUILD GENTRIFICATIONS

Debates concerning the concept of new-build gentrification emerged principally within the UK and USA contexts. As such, there are important questions to be examined with regards to how the concept might, or might not, be applied in different contexts (see Lees 2012; Maloutas 2011). This section reviews the variety of ways that the concept of new-build gentrification has been applied over the past decade. The principal objective is to demonstrate how a variety of new-build gentrifications have been identified. Far from there being the mono-dimensional process of new-build gentrification that many early Global North centred debates implicitly presumed, the new-build gentrification literature has now identified and examined a whole range of urban transformations.

In identifying how the concept of new-build gentrification has been utilized to understand urban change outside of its points of conceptual origin, I am rejecting some of the post-colonial critiques circulating in urban studies (e.g. Ghertner 2014; Robinson 2015). Although post-colonial urban research comes in various iterations, its core concern is that the exporting of theory from the 'Global North' to the 'Global South' tends to misinterpret and misrepresent sets of processes that are, ultimately, indigenously derived and contextually embedded (Robinson 2015). For some gentrification scholars, this means we must reject the application of concepts that are intricately bound up with attempts to understand the Global North metropolis (Maloutas 2011). Others find it necessary to supplement Global North theories with those developed from within different contexts, therefore developing hybrid approaches (Lemanski 2014). The approach taken here in order to trace out the geographies of new-build gentrification is derived from the definition of gentrification developed by Davidson and Lees (2005; see above). This definition seeks to outline the most basic elements of a class-based neighbourhood transition under capitalism.

A further reason why this definition is used in order to understand a diversity of cases is its analytical modesty. It does not assume, as Ghertner's (2014) recent work suggests, (a) an assertion of responsibility for displacement, (b) any particular processes of tenure priority or transformation, or (c) allocations or mobilizations of force. It does, however, assume that the process of gentrification involves land assuming a higher and better use as defined under capitalism. Furthermore, it does not imply that the process takes place in the same way, involves the same actors, or generates the same outcomes in all places. It simply outlines the most basic features of class-based neighbourhood transition under capitalism. Consequently, it is assumed that the concept can be used in places that satisfy the conditions of (a) operating under capitalism and (b) involving class-based competition over residential space. In the sections that follow, four key dimensions of the new-build gentrification literature are critically reviewed: (a) new-build gentrification and the state; (b) new-build gentrification and its consequent forms of displacement; (c) new-build gentrification and its implication in real estate development; and (d) new-build gentrification and gentrifiers.

15.4.1 New-build Gentrification and the State

The state has remained a central theme of the new-build gentrification literature, with the theme of state as policy maker, urban strategist and shaper of outcomes being particularly notable (Davidson and Lees 2005; Hackworth and Smith 2001; Smith 1996). Collectively these accounts have tended to involve an exploration of the strong connection between neoliberal states and new-build gentrification, although this relationship is not determinate and a growing literature exists on the connection between new-build gentrification and (post-)socialist states (see Bernt 2016; Ren 2015). The relation between new-build gentrification and the state is therefore varied with context and iteration being important to producing very particular types of new-build gentrification. New-build gentrification is commonly associated with the importation and localization of urban policy. As described by Smith (2002; also see Davidson and Lees 2005), gentrification became a blueprint for urban policy across the globe. New-build gentrification has been at the forefront of this process, with states adopting gentrifying urban renewal programs from elsewhere (see Harris 2008; Zhang et al. 2013) and applying them within their own locales (although we now know that there were in fact earlier, endogenous examples of new-build gentrification in, for example, South Korea, see Lees, Shin and López-Morales 2016). New-build gentrification has therefore become a manifestation of broader processes of policy mobility (McCann and Ward 2011), where urban policy models are developed and transmitted across a vast array of cities.

Although this transference of policy is widely acknowledged to involve the adoption of gentrifying strategies, as Harris (2008) explains in the context of British models being adopted in Mumbai, the outcome of this process is far from simply replication of neighbourhood change:

The practical politics of gentrification need to be understood as contingently realised across different global contexts. Although Lower Parel's gentrification has been framed by transnational actors and urban imaginaries, it has also been the product of the whims and wherefores of a powerful nexus of politicians, builders and developers exploiting and profiting from Mumbai's poorly implemented and monitored land use policies and planning controls (2423).

Harris follows this cautionary note with an acknowledgment that the contextually dependent manifestations of new-build gentrification in Mumbai generated potential for learning to occur in ways that transmitted knowledge back to the perceived places of origin of gentrification processes.

In other locations, this process has played out differently. In China, the centrality of the Communist state has resulted in a highly particularized set of processes. In Shanghai, an enthusiastic embrace of new-build gentrification by state officials has resulted in state powers being used to instigate large-scale demolition processes and large-scale direct displacement processes. The nuances of the debate in the UK (see Boddy and Lambert 2002; Davidson and Lees 2005) have, on this issue, not been required. Outside of Shanghai, similar utilizations of state power are evident in China, with cities like Yuxiu adopting gentrifying strategies in a vibrant, historical urban centre (see Zhang et al. 2013). Here again, context is centrally important since new-build gentrification is not premised on brownfield conversion or substantial disinvestment.

Whether in China, the Philippines (Ortega 2016), New Zealand (Murphy 2008) or Sweden (Hedin et al. 2012), new-build gentrification has often required and/or utilized state powers to instigate large-scale neighbourhood transformation. In each case, we can find the defining features of new-build gentrification present (Davidson and Lees 2005) and yet the variation in process and outcome are most striking. In terms of state power, it is possible to identify degrees of policy replication, varying amounts of state violence and different versions of amelioration.

15.4.2 New-build Gentrification and its Consequent Forms of Displacement

Across the new-build gentrification literature, it is now clear that the process is not only responsible for significant indirect displacement (Davidson and Lees 2005, 2010) but also significant amounts of direct displacement (Bromley and Mackie 2009; He 2010). The variety of displacements associated with new-build gentrification again demonstrates how the defining features of the process cannot be used to forecast any specific outcomes.

In the most extreme cases, new-build gentrification has generated extensive and violent displacement processes. Ortega (2016) has recently described how the coalescence of global city strategy, international real estate capital, and gentrification has generated an aggressive and violent process of displacement in Manila:

Creating 'world-class' spaces of wealth, production, and consumption in Manila rests upon the dispossession of the urban poor, particularly informal settlers. Beyond posh facades of condominium buildings or green gardens of mixed-use developments, the ugly face of gentrification lies in its war against informality. The spatialities of recent demolitions illustrate how profit-oriented lure of 'world-class' developments reconfigure the relationship of informal settlers and local officials, eventually trumping their political claims. This very same lure masks the brutality of eviction and legitimizes their expulsion to distant relocation sites (48).

Similar descriptions of large-scale direct displacement can be found in China (He 2010) and, to a lesser extent, in Taiwan (Hsu and Hsu 2013).

Elsewhere, less explicitly violent forms of displacement have been commonly found. In Europe, issues of displacement are often bound up with social policy initiatives, where a desire to produce social mix (Davidson 2008) has accompanied concerns about

gentrification-induced displacement. In Amsterdam, efforts to produce neighbourhood social mixing have been attempted through the liberalization of housing markets and privatization of social housing stock (Boterman and van Gent 2014). Such policy programs, as elsewhere (see Van Criekingen 2010), have tended to open up some vulnerable populations to displacement pressures. In Sweden, a neoliberal turn has made privatization and tenure transformation a central part of contemporary urban process, with the inevitable creation of displacement pressures where none previously existed (Hedin et al. 2012).

Subtle forms of indirect displacement also continue to be associated with state-led efforts to increase urban densities. In Davidson and Lees' (2010) examinations of London, the policy-led effort to increase residential densities using brownfield land was linked to a host of displacement processes. These same types of displacement processes have been identified in cities such as Tokyo (Lutzeler 2008) and Bangkok (Moore 2015), where attempts to 'reurbanize' sections of the inner city have set in motion displacement processes that are forcing long-term residents from their neighbourhoods.

15.4.3 New-build Gentrification and its Implication in Real Estate Development

In recent years, a sub-set of the new-build gentrification literature has begun to trace out the varied ways in which this relationship between new-build gentrification and real estate capital has been structured. Gentrification scholars have often found this link to real estate capital is bound up with state-led renewal attempts (Davidson 2007). In these cases, state actors have acted to incentivize investments in areas of strategic concern. For example, in Atlanta, Georgia, Immergluck (2009) found that real estate speculation and consequent gentrification was highly correlated with planning initiatives. In other locations, such as Barcelona (see Arbaci and Tapada-Berteli 2012), it has been state demolition programs that have instigated new geographies of real estate investment. In the Chinese context, Liang and Bao (2015) found that real estate development and new-build gentrification were united by tourism policies in Shenzhen.

López-Morales (2016) has offered one of the first studies into how real estate capital activity engages in new-build gentrification. In his study of new-build gentrification in Santiago, Chile, he found that developers undertook a set of strategies in order to extract maximum profits from their exploitation of the rent gap and, simultaneously, reduce resistance from existing residents. Through the establishment of monopoly positions, López-Morales' study explains how real estate capital can work in concert with the state in order to produce processes of (i) monopolistic buying power, (ii) blockbusting, (iii) construction-led deterioration, (iv) redlining, and (v) abandonment and deliberate deterioration. This work powerfully demonstrates how real estate investors are not passive in their exploitation of rent gaps, but rather that they actively create the rent gaps necessary for gentrification and foster the conditions necessary for maximum profit exploitation.

Although there is much more work to be done on how real estate actors engage with and enact the processes of new-build gentrification, the existing literature demonstrates a variety of intersections between state and capital and the construction of strategies by real estate actors to enact particularly violent forms of gentrification.

15.4.4 New-build Gentrification and Gentrifiers

The relationship between new-build gentrification and gentrifiers remains one of the most under-examined parts of the process. Although classical gentrification studies often alluded to how particular subjects became engaged/made through the process (Bridge 2006), new-build gentrification has less obvious connections. New-build gentrification is, by definition, a much more commodified process that almost universally involves the gentrifier being the purchaser of a finished commodity. Such a relationship can lead to questions over whether those in gentrifying new-build developments are gentrifiers at all, since the processes of subject formation traditionally associated with gentrifiers appear largely absent.

Existing literature has demonstrated a strong connection between new-build gentrification and mobility. In his work on Swiss gentrification, Rerat (2012) has shown that new-build gentrifiers have a strong desire for 'the convenience of urban life' (221), meaning that proximity to urban centre amenities and mass transit corridors are crucial considerations for gentrifying residents. This mirrors the findings of Butler and Robson (2004) in their multi-neighbourhood study of gentrification in London. They similarly found that gentrification, where renovation- or new-build based, had become a coping strategy for those in the high intensity, long working-hours, post-industrial workforce. In the different context of Bangkok, Moore (2015) finds a similar correlation, with the installation of rapid mass transit being highly correlated with gentrifying urban development. New-build gentrification therefore shows, at least in relation to proximity and mobility, similarities to classical 'back to the city' gentrification processes. However it remains unclear if urbane attitudes are also associated with this desire for city centre proximity.

Kern's (2010) studies on the gender dimensions of new-build gentrification suggest that the relationship between new-build gentrifiers and urbane attitudes might be complex:

Through the commodification of fear and safety, of women's freedom and women's sexuality, neoliberal processes of privatization, securitization and capital accumulation are able to circulate with increased speed through expanding markets. Moreover, women's everyday lives and urban identities are shaped by this tension, drawing middle-class and professional women into the project of the revanchist, entrepreneurial city (211).

Here, urban and anti-urban sentiments both serve to fuel processes of new-build gentrification in Toronto. In the context of the real estate development process, the secure 'safe' spaces of the closeted new-build condo complex stand in paradoxical complementarity with the perceived dangers of the city. Whether the same tensions exist with regards to other facets of subjectivity in the new-build gentrification process remains largely unknown, although Butler and Robson's (2004) late 1990s and early 2000s account of gentrifiers in London suggests that similar complexes exist in relation to education.

15.5 CONCLUSIONS

The process of new-build gentrification has proliferated over the globe during the past two decades. Although it takes radically different forms across place and time, through tracing out its defining features it is possible to examine how a particular modality of

urban change produces a variety of neighbourhood class-based transformations. Yet, there are many aspects of this still-emerging process that we know too little about.

First, there are some analytical and conceptual developments that can improve existing understandings. Although Smith (1996, 2002) and Davidson and Lees (2005, 2010) have provided accounts of the process in its early forms, a detailed account of the forms and evolution of new-build gentrification within and across contexts is yet to be written. Second, existing work on comparative perspectives has failed to develop persuasive typologies of new-build gentrification. Too often the concept is used either in a wholesale fashion or critiqued and abandoned. Charting a course between these positions (e.g. Lemanski 2014) in order to understand the diversity of the process will remain an on-going challenge. Many empirical gaps also exist. Many cities and regions that have become incorporated into global real estate development processes, such as Beirut and Moscow, and the concomitant gentrification remain under-studied. Like gentrification studies more generally, we also continue to know too little about the varied forms and combinations of displacement associated with new-build gentrification.

Beyond the particular theoretical and empirical concerns of the gentrification literature, there is also a growing need to examine how new-build gentrification became a part of the broader urbanization process under neoliberal capitalism (Harvey 2012). Over the past decade, new-build gentrification in places such as London and New York has rapidly accelerated. The scale of residential developments has grown as the process has become incorporated into both middle-class and elite housing markets. Gentrification may have started out as a small-scale urban phenomenon, but current new-build gentrification processes highlight how central it has become to the recreation of urbanized capitalism itself. This has generated numerous new questions. In terms of geography, new-build gentrification has become a suburban phenomenon in places like East Asia (Hudalah et al. 2016), making the 'back-to-the-city' trope less useful. As new-build gentrification has also become driven by speculation in real estate markets, the relationship between gentrifying neighbourhood change and gentrifiers is also mutating. Unpicking how new-build gentrification has become constitutive of broader politico-economic processes, through state planning, capital circulation and debt-financing, is therefore becoming a more urgent task. It is also a task that will require gentrification research to expand beyond its traditional boundaries. For example, neighbourhood-based analysis may have to be supplemented with an analysis of real estate networks and financial assemblages. As gentrification has transcended the neighbourhood, so must its researchers.

REFERENCES

- Arbaci, S. and Tapada-Berteli, T. (2012) 'Social inequality and urban regeneration in Barcelona city centre: reconsidering success', *European Urban and Regional Studies*, 19, 287–311.
- Berman, M. (1988) *All That Is Solid Melts into Air: The Experience of Modernity*, reissue edition, New York: Penguin Books.
- Bernt, M. (2016) 'How post-socialist is gentrification? Observations in East Berlin and Saint Petersburg', *Eurasian Geography and Economics*, online early, 1–23.
- Boterman, W. and van Gent, W. (2014) 'Housing liberalisation and gentrification: the social effects of tenure conversions in Amsterdam', *Tijdschrift voor Economische en Sociale Geografie*, 105, 140–160.
- Bridge, G. (2006) 'It's not just a question of taste: gentrification, the neighbourhood, and cultural capital', *Environment and Planning A*, 38, 1965–1978.

- Bromley, R. and Mackie, P. (2009) 'Displacement and the new spaces for informal trade in the Latin American city centre', *Urban Studies*, 46, 1485–1506.
- Butler, T. and Robson, G. (2004) *London Calling: The Middle Classes and the Remaking of Inner London*, 1st edn, Oxford, New York: Bloomsbury Academic.
- Buzar, S., Hall, R. and Ogden, P. (2007) 'Beyond gentrification: the demographic reurbanisation of Bologna', *Environment and Planning A*, 39, 64–85.
- Christophers, B. (2016) 'For real: land as capital and commodity', *Transactions of the Institute of British Geographers*, 41, 134–148.
- Criekingen, M. (2009) 'Moving in/out of Brussels' historical core in the early 2000s: migration and the effects of gentrification', *Urban Studies*, 46, 825–848.
- Davidson, M. (2009) 'Displacement, space and dwelling: placing gentrification debate', *Ethics, Place and Environment*, 12, 219–234.
- Davidson, M. (2010) 'Love thy neighbour? Social mixing in London's gentrification frontiers', *Environment and Planning A*, 42, 524–544.
- Davidson, M. and Lees, L. (2005) 'New-build "gentrification" and London's riverside renaissance', *Environment and Planning A*, 37, 1165–1190.
- Davidson, M. and Lees, L. (2010) 'New-build gentrification: its histories, trajectories, and critical geographies', *Population, Space and Place*, 16, 395–411.
- Davidson, M. and Wyly, E. (2012) 'Class-ifying London', *City*, 16, 395–421.
- Doucet, B., R. van Kempen, and Weesep, J. van (2011) 'We're a rich city with poor people': municipal strategies of new-build gentrification in Rotterdam and Glasgow', *Environment and Planning A*, 43, 1438–1454.
- Gans, H. (1982) *The Levittowners: Ways of Life and Politics in a New Suburban Community*, New York: Columbia University Press.
- Ghertner, D. (2014) 'India's urban revolution: geographies of displacement beyond gentrification', *Environment and Planning A*, 46, 1554–1571.
- Giddens, A. (1999) *The Third Way: The Renewal of Social Democracy*, Cambridge: Polity Press.
- Glass, R. (1964) *London: Aspects of Change*, London: MacGibbon & Kee.
- Goetz, E. (2011) 'Gentrification in black and white: the racial impact of public housing demolition in American cities', *Urban Studies*, 48, 1581–1604.
- Haase, A., Kabisch, S., Steinführer, A., Bouzarovski, S., Hall, R. and Ogden, P. (2010) 'Emergent spaces of reurbanisation: exploring the demographic dimension of inner-city residential change in a European setting', *Population, Space and Place*, 16, 443–463.
- Hackworth, J. and Smith, N. (2001) 'The changing state of gentrification', *Tijdschrift voor Economische en Sociale Geografie*, 92, 464–477.
- Hamnett, C. (1994) 'Social polarisation in global cities: theory and evidence', *Urban Studies*, 31, 401–424.
- Harris, A. (2008) 'From London to Mumbai and back again: gentrification and public policy in comparative perspective', *Urban Studies*, 45, 2407–2428.
- Harvey, D. (1978) 'The urban process under capitalism: a framework for analysis', *International Journal of Urban and Regional Research*, 2, 101–131.
- Harvey, D. (2005) *Paris, Capital of Modernity*, 1st edn, London: Routledge.
- Harvey, D. (2013) *Rebel Cities: From the Right to the City to the Urban Revolution*, 1st edn, London: Verso.
- He, S. (2010) 'New-build gentrification in Central Shanghai: demographic changes and socioeconomic implications', *Population, Space and Place*, 16, 345–361.
- Hedin, K., Clark, E., Lundholm, E. and Malmberg, G. (2012) 'Neoliberalization of housing in Sweden: gentrification, filtering, and social polarization', *Annals of the Association of American Geographers*, 102, 443–463.
- Heidegger, M. (1927[2008]) *Being and Time*, Harper.
- Hsu, J. and Hsu, Y. (2013) 'State transformation, policy learning, and exclusive displacement in the process of urban redevelopment in Taiwan', *Urban Geography*, 34, 677–698.
- Hudalah, D., Winarso, H. and Woltjer, J. (2016) 'Gentrifying the peri-urban: land use conflicts and institutional dynamics at the frontier of an Indonesian metropolis', *Urban Studies*, 53(3), 593–608.
- Immergluck, D. (2009) 'Large redevelopment initiatives, housing values and gentrification: the case of the Atlanta Beltline', *Urban Studies*, 46, 1723–1745.
- Kern, L. (2010) 'Selling the "scary city": gendering freedom, fear and condominium development in the neoliberal city', *Social and Cultural Geography*, 11, 209–230.
- Lambert, C. and Lambert, C. (2002) 'Transforming the city: post-recession gentrification and reurbanisation', paper presented at the XVI AESOP Congress, Volos, Greece, 10–15 July.
- Lees, L. (2008) 'Gentrification and social mixing: towards an inclusive urban renaissance?', *Urban Studies*, 45, 2449–2470.
- Lees, L. (2012) 'The geography of gentrification: thinking through comparative urbanism', *Progress in Human Geography*, 36, 155–171.

- Lees, L. (2014) 'The urban injustices of New Labour's "New Urban Renewal": the case of the Aylesbury Estate in London', *Antipode*, 46, 921–947.
- Lees, L., Shin, H. and López-Morales, E. (2016) *Planetary Gentrification*, Cambridge: Polity Press.
- Lefebvre, H. (1992) *The Production of Space*, 1st edn, Oxford, UK; Cambridge, MA, USA: Wiley-Blackwell.
- Lemanski, C. (2014) 'Hybrid gentrification in South Africa: theorising across southern and northern cities', *Urban Studies*, 51, 2943–2960.
- Liang, Z.-X. and Bao, J.-G. (2015) 'Tourism gentrification in Shenzhen, China: causes and socio-spatial consequences', *Tourism Geographies*, 17, 461–481.
- López-Morales, E. (2016) 'Gentrification in Santiago, Chile: a property-led process of dispossession and exclusion', *Urban Geography*, 37, 1109–1131.
- Lützel, R. (2008) 'Population increase and "new-build gentrification" in Central Tōkyō', *Erkunde*, 62, 287–299.
- Maloutas, T. (2012) 'Contextual diversity in gentrification research', *Critical Sociology*, 38, 33–48.
- Marcuse, P. (1985) 'Gentrification, abandonment, and displacement: connections, causes, and policy responses in New York City', *Urban Law Annual: Journal of Urban and Contemporary Law*, 28, 195–240.
- Marcuse, P. (1993) 'Degentrification and advanced homelessness: new patterns, old processes, Netherlands', *Journal of Housing and the Built Environment*, 8, 177–191.
- McCann, E. and Ward, K. (2011) *Mobile Urbanism: Cities and Policymaking in the Global Age*, University of Minnesota Press.
- Moore, R.D. (2015) 'Gentrification and displacement: the impacts of mass transit in Bangkok', *Urban Policy and Research*, 33, 472–489.
- Moulaert, F., Rodriguez, A. and Swyngedouw, E. (2003) *The Globalized City: Economic Restructuring and Social Polarization in European Cities*, Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Murphy, L. (2008) 'Third-wave gentrification in New Zealand: the case of Auckland', *Urban Studies*, 45, 2521–2540.
- Ortega, A. (2016) 'Manila's metropolitan landscape of gentrification: global urban development, accumulation by dispossession and neoliberal warfare against informality', *Geoforum*, 70, 35–50.
- Ren, J. (2015) 'Gentrification in China?', in L. Lees, H.B. Shin and E. López-Morales (eds), *Global Gentrifications: Uneven Development and Displacement*, Bristol: Polity Press, pp. 329–348.
- Rérat, P. (2012) 'Gentrifiers and their choice of housing: characteristics of the households living in new developments in Swiss cities', *Environment and Planning A*, 44, 221–236.
- Robinson, J. (2016) 'Thinking cities through elsewhere: comparative tactics for a more global urban studies', *Progress in Human Geography*, 40, 3–29.
- Rose, D., Germain, A., Bacqué, M., Bridge, G., Fijalkow, Y. and Slater, T. (2013) '"Social mix" and neighbourhood revitalization in a transatlantic perspective: comparing local policy discourses and expectations in Paris (France), Bristol (UK) and Montréal (Canada)', *International Journal of Urban and Regional Research*, 37, 430–450.
- Rosen, G. and Walks, A. (2015) 'Castles in Toronto's sky: condo-ism as urban transformation', *Journal of Urban Affairs*, 37, 289–310.
- Shaw, K. (2002) 'Culture, economics and evolution in gentrification', *Just Policy: A Journal of Australian Social Policy*, 28, 42–50.
- Smith, D. (2011) 'What is rural gentrification? Exclusionary migration, population change, and revalorised housing markets', *Planning Theory and Practice*, 12(4), 596–605.
- Smith, N. (1979) 'Toward a theory of gentrification: a back to the city movement by capital, not people', *Journal of the American Planning Association*, 45, 538–548.
- Smith, N. (1996) *The New Urban Frontier: Gentrification and the Revanchist City*, London: New York: Routledge.
- Smith, N. (2002) 'New globalism, new urbanism: gentrification as global urban strategy', *Antipode*, 34, 427–450.
- Urban Task Force (1999) *Towards an Urban Renaissance*, London: Routledge.
- Van Criekingen, M. (2010) '"Gentrifying the re-urbanisation debate", not vice versa: the uneven socio-spatial implications of changing transitions to adulthood in Brussels', *Population, Space and Place*, 16, 381–394.
- van Gent, W. (2013) 'Neoliberalization, housing institutions and variegated gentrification: how the "third wave" broke in Amsterdam', *International Journal of Urban and Regional Research*, 37, 503–522.
- Visser, G. and Kotze, N. (2008) 'The state and new-build gentrification in Central Cape Town, South Africa', *Urban Studies*, 45, 2565–2593.
- Watt, P. (2008) 'The only class in town? Gentrification and the middle-class colonization of the city and the urban imagination', *International Journal of Urban and Regional Research*, 32, 206–211.
- Wu, F. (2015) 'State dominance in urban redevelopment beyond gentrification in urban China', *Urban Affairs Review*, 1078087415612930.
- Zhang, X., Hu, J., Skitmore, M. and Leung, B. (2014) 'Inner-city urban redevelopment in China metropolises and the emergence of gentrification: case of Yuexiu, Guangzhou', *Journal of Urban Planning and Development*, 140(4).